

The historical development and evolution of leadership in the literature of educational research

Leadership teachings of the past decade, as well as the last century, have offered a great deal of advice from many different perspectives on how to best build an organization for today. From their successes and failures, they have provided many important lessons for today's leadership and that will shape future leadership. Today's leadership role moves from a group leadership concept to one that places responsibility and accountability much more in the hands of individuals. The work mode of the future will be more individual-centered than group-centered, with considerable self-determination and high levels of shared-goal collaboration (Bieber et al., 2002).

Historically, the evolution of leadership has evolved for centuries. Back in the day of Spencer's "Social Darwinism" (Marion, 2002, p. 194), only the opening years of the 20th century represented the dawn of a new age, when the old world gave way to the new that started the Industrial Revolution during the major paradigm shifts in technology, socio-economic, and cultural change. The revolution spawned the factory worker and their machines to do more. As a result, the Machine theory emerged (Marion, 2002, p. 21). Frederick Taylor, the Industrialist, considered the father of Scientific Management, in his famous handbook *Principles of Scientific Management* (1911) argued the theory that management's job was to identify the best way to train workers, and provide the supervision and monitoring needed to ensure that they would follow the prescribed methods. This suggested model demanded centralization, standardization, hierarchical top-down management, a rigid sense of time, and accountability based on adherence to the system (DuFour & Eaker, 1998, p. 20).

Modern organizational theory is rooted in Scientific Management and the human relations approach. It deals with the formal structure, internal working, and external environment of

complex human behavior within organizations (Marion, 2003, p. 195). Modern leadership and management also have to look toward results, respecting the qualities of each individual, and a desire to help each individual grow, achieve, and fulfill potential. This perspective describes leadership in terms of facilitating cooperative behavior, providing opportunities for personal growth, and dealing with humans needs (Gutek, 2002, p. 118). Similarly, Bolman and Deal (2003) explained that “The job of the leader is support and empower. Support takes a variety of forms: showing concern for people, listening to their aspirations and goals, and communicating personal warmth and openness” (p. 324). Modern organizational theories suggest that there is a relationship between organizations and human behavior, whereby the organization, interactions, and relationships between individuals and the group influence behavior.

As most scholars agree, leadership is a complicated and expansive subject. In literature of leadership and management, there are thousands of sources offering theoretical and practical knowledge for leadership. Most theories provide the same common framework for rules, laws, and principles. The practical aspects can be categorized by styles of behavioral and personality characteristics. Theory and practice are the guiding principles for leadership. The classical scholars (Henri Fayol, Max Weber, and Fredrick Taylor) suggested one best system, but most modern theorists believe that there is not one best way to organize. Modern organizational theories provide a different perspective about the relationship between an organization’s survival with the environment (Marion, 2002, p. 24).

Theories have impacted modern management and leader practices

Based on Marion’s (2002) topology, modern leadership and management are impacted by Closed Systems theory, Open Systems theory, and Anti-Positivism. Specific theories include Machine Theory, Human Relations Theory, Structuralism Theory, Contingency Theory,

Strategic Choice Theory, Population Ecology Theory, Culture Theory, Critical theory, Critical Theory, Institutionalism Theory, and Complexity Theory. All of these theories have profound effects on management and leader practices. They seem to agree on the strength of human behavior and its effects on the leadership and management styles.

Closed Systems Theory is a combination of Machine Theory, Human Relations Theory, and Structuralism Theory. These theories are about efficiency and effectiveness, and are based on the presumption that organizations are largely self-contained entities, without any external force from the environment. The advocates of this theory argue that decisions can be optimized, and that there is one best solution to a given problem (Marion, 2002, p. 27). Machine Theory focuses on hierarchical communications to the exclusion of horizontal communication.

Bureaucracy Theory models itself around the efficiency needs of the organization. This theory is related to Human Relations Theory in that human variability is controlled by rules. Rules and procedures encourage rigid behavior. This suggests "closed" bureaucratic structures separate from their surroundings. This approach conveys that systems are independent of environmental influences. It allows most of its problems to be analyzed with reference to its internal structure, and without reference to its external environment such as variables of size, technology, location, ownership, managerial strategies, and leadership style. This approach can be applied at the technical level of the organization, because it is necessary to reduce uncertainty. However, in today's collaborative environment, it is hard for any organization to survive without adapting to the external environment and society.

In contrast, Open Systems Theory refers simply to the concept that organizations are strongly influenced by their internal behavior and external environment. The internal behaviors of an organization refer to the activities, interactions, and sentiments the participants. Seiler

(1967) argues that a system's external environment is composed of human forces, organizational forces, and technologies (Marion, 2002, p. 91). Human forces characterize population density, available skills, attitudes, cultural values, etc. Organizational forces characterize theories of organization, political requirements, competition, etc. Technological forces characterize available techniques and knowledge, finances and markets, materials and supplies, and etc. (Marion, 2002, p. 93). Open Systems theorists suggest that organizational subsystems interact in complex ways with one another and with their environment. The environment also provides key resources that sustain the organization and lead to change and survival. This perspective does not view simple "closed" bureaucratic structures separate from their surroundings, but as highly complex entities, facing considerable uncertainties in their operations and constantly interacting with their environment.

As described by Marion (2002), modern theories of organization are rooted in Open Systems Theory. Specific theories include Contingency Theory, Strategic Choice Theory, Population Ecology Theory, Culture Theory, Critical Theory, Institutionalism Theory, and Complexity Theory. Although there is a great variety in the perspectives provided, they share the perspective that an organization's survival is dependent upon its relationship with the environment. However, the assumption underlying most theories is devoted to the enhancement of efficiency, productivity, and effectiveness.

Fred Fielder (1973) is considered the father of Leadership Contingency. Contingency Theory explains that group performance is a result of the interaction of two factors. These factors are known as leadership style and situational favorable. This theory suggests that an organization is organized in ways that best fit the environment in which they are embedded. Contingency theorists argue that, rather than seeking universal principles that apply to all or most

organizations, analysts should identify contingency principles that reflect the demands of particular types of task environments organizations work in (Marion, 2002, p. 134). An example of contingency thinking is the insight that bureaucracy is an organizational model that applies to stable task environments better than to volatile and uncertain conditions. With respect to leadership and management, Fiedler (1973) suggests that the effectiveness of a leader is determined by the degree of match between a dominant trait of the leader and the favorableness of the situation for the leader (Marion, 2002, p. 137). This suggests that the organization is effective when it is in tune with its contingent conditions, and that it is ineffective when it is out of tune with those contingencies. With all things being equal, if an environment is stable and predictable, leaders can put together a rather simple organizational structure (Marion, 2002, p. 121).

Strategic Choice Theory assumes that leadership and management have significant choice over the way in which they manage and adapt to changes in their external and internal environments. Changing external environment induces leadership to make adjustment to their idiosyncratic nature of preferences—personal and impersonal forces. Strategic Choice theorists argue that decision making is made based on making changes to these adjustments, the range of options well thought-out, filtered, and constrained such as values, beliefs, experiences, and leadership styles (Marion, 2002, p. 166). However, deficiency exists when making a quick decision, and reaching wrong conclusions.

Population Ecology Theory is about adaptive preferences that deal with the random forces of natural selection. This suggests that leadership and management need to develop routines to ensure reliability and accountability. Reliability and accountability require organizational structures that are highly reproducible. This reproduction of routines, that is the cause of

organizational inertia. Inertia is considered a consequence of selection. A balance is found at the niche's "carrying capacity" (Marion, 2002, p. 196).

Culture Theory states that its premise is one of increased effectiveness by means of strong cultures and involved participants. O'Reilly and Chatman (1996) define culture as a "system of shared values and norms that define appropriate attitudes and behaviors for organizational members 'how to feel and behave'" (p. 160). They, like many researchers, see a relationship between culture and performance/attainment of organizational goals. As Marion (2002) has pointed out, "culture is not just ethnic or national. It is any stable order that emerges from interactive, social dynamics. When people interact, they influence each other's beliefs, understandings, behaviors, and perceptions of reality" (p. 225). Understanding differences between cultural values and work values, and between the organizational values of different groups at work can be helpful when trying to implement change. This knowledge can also be helpful when trying to develop culturally appropriate leadership and management practices. For example, the assumption that someone can simply "impose" a culture on a group of people is not only erroneous, but potentially destructive.

Critical Theory is about control preferences and organizational control that can have a profound effect on people. Critical theorists argue that even the more humanistic approaches to management subjugate workers to the interests of rule elite. They suggest that leadership and management need to devise strategies for effectively controlling workers and enhancing their productivity. However, Critical Theory remains somewhat on the fringe of organizational theory because of this radical leaning (Marion, 2002, p.254).

Institutional Theory is about social preferences. Institutional theorists see organizations as a means by which the societal values and beliefs are embedded in organizational structure and

expressed in organizational change (Marion, 2002, p. 228). Schein (1992) stated “climate is the feeling that is conveyed in group by the physical layout and the way in which members of the organization interact with each other, with customers, or with other outsiders” (Marion, 2002, p. 9). Leadership and Management seek to understand how cultural differences influence various patterns of the organization.

Chaos and Complexity Theories describe the complex interactions involving large networks. Chaos is the general theory of interacting systems, while complexity is derived from Chaos Theory, and is a specific theory of interactive and adaptive systems (Marion, 2002, p. 303).

Complexity Theory explains non linear, dynamical systems. Most of nature is non linear and not easily predicted. For example, weather is composed of many components interacting in complex ways that lead to unpredictability. Ecosystems, embryos, and the brain are other examples of complex, dynamical systems that are not easily explained by linear chains of causality (Marion, 2002, p. 304). However, applying Complexity Theory to the understanding of social organizations challenges the assumptions of linear relationships between contingencies and organizational structure and focuses on unpredictability and uncertainty in organizational behaviors.

Systems Theory suggests that leaders are designers, stewards, and coaches. In terms of organizational leadership, they need to view the organization as a system in which the parts are internally and externally connected to the external environment and to clarify how the whole system can work better. In practice, leaders are responsible for building organizations such as the design of the organization’s policies, strategies and “systems”. From this perspective, organizational leaderships provide structures and integrate vision, mission, values, and goals.

Leaders are responsible for designing the organizations, as well as empowering the people throughout the organization to keep the organization running. In addition, they need to provide new skills of mentoring, coaching and helping others to grow and become a new cadre of leaders, in addition to problem-solving and decision making (Marion, 2002, pp. 313-314).

Create and manage team

The important implications of all these theories for educational leadership is that a compass gets us beyond “buzzworditis”. Even the term “vision” can seem like “in the eyes of one,” whereas with principle-centered leadership the individual’s capacities, competence and creativity are effectively tapped into and brought to the culture of the workplace in a way that taps into the four levels of need (economic, social, psychological and spiritual). Of all the organizational theories describe in this paper, there is “no one best theory” to describe any organization or explain the importance of human behavior and society. The new frontier of tomorrow still needs exploring, and it is up to new leadership to plan the foundation of the classical theories, that transform and adapt traditional into the “one best theory” of the future.

With this perspective, the new term “one best organization” can be defined as the integration of all the theories into the best practiced process and practices. The leadership is the one providing the vision, mission, and building the world class management teams to carry out the mission. Clear vision and mission are essential for survival and success of the organization. Complexity Theory and systematic thinking have best described the leadership as designers, stewards and coaches. Strategic Choice and Contingency Theories can be use to map the structuring of organizations. Critical and Culture Theories have also stressed the important of human behavior in building the organization. Bill Gates (1999) in his book, *Business @ The Speed of Thought* stated:

“In business the argument between the old-style theory X mentality, that workers are lazy and need to be driven, and theory Y, that workers are creative and should be given responsibility. Digital processes support the assumption that workers can and will do more if allowed, enabled, and encouraged to think and act” (p. 410).

These words of wisdom came from the man who ran the most profitable and successful entrepreneurs in the world. This is a kind of thinking that leadership of tomorrow needs to seriously think about the power of the workers.

Creating world class management is essential to the success of the organization. The management's best practice is the one that involves the communication of a clear mission and strategy, leadership by example, the setting of demanding but realistic targets, an open communicative management style, and clear and careful strategic management. Empowering people is vital to the success of the organization by fostering communication and collaboration throughout the organization. Most importantly, leadership and management promote the organization values growth because the people are the one making it possible. Abraham Maslow (1954) talks about the human needs (physiological, safety, belongingness and love, esteem, and self-actualization), and it is basically saying that people and organizations need each other to be successful (Bolman & Deal, 2003, p. 117).

Creating a management team is also essential to the success of the organization. The management team provides the leadership for the organization and helps carry out its mission. The members of the management team are people who have the personal characteristics that are likely to result in their being successful with the organization. The term “leadership” and “management” are one and the same, in that they seek to empower the people and promote a holistic approach to human growth and development. Traditionally, the term “management” is described as the function of planning, organizing, leading and controlling activities in an

organization. The leader is interpreted as someone who sets direction in an effort to influence people to follow the direction.

The organizational configurations framework of Mintzberg is a model that describes six valid organizational configurations: entrepreneurial organization, machine organization, professional organization, diversified organization, innovative organization, and missionary organization. In this model of Mintzberg, each organization can consist of a maximum of six basic parts: Strategic Apex (top management), Middle Line (middle management), Operating Core (operations, operational processes), Technostructure (analysts that design systems, processes, etc), Support Staff (support outside of operating workflow), and Ideology (halo of beliefs and traditions; norms, values, culture) (Bolman & Deal, 2002, p. 73; Marion, 2002, p. 208). Contingency Theory can be use to select “best fit” team members to Mintzberg’s six basic parts of the organization.

Finally, the best illustration of the usefulness of the “one best theory”, can be describe as the six sections of orchestras playing Beethoven, using Mentzberg’s six basic parts of the organization. All sections work together to mesh in perfect harmony, as they take their cues from the conductor. The result is magnificent music that sweeps the audience away. In contrast, if one section is not faring as well, the conductor can retune and try again. When two or more sections are not faring well, the conductor is caught in a cross fire of noises, wincing as people in the audience begin to leave the concert hall (Ling & Goddard, 1998, p. 3).

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